

Self-avoiding walks in Anderson localization

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Introduction

The Anderson localization model was introduced by the physicist P.W. Anderson in 1958 [And58] to explain the quantum-mechanical effects of disorder in materials. In particular, Anderson's purpose was to study the behavior of electrons in a lattice with disordered potential energy on the sites, which is the quantum-mechanical analogue of a random walk in a random environment.

The model is governed by a random Schrödinger operator that describes the total energy of the system. This operator is composed of a kinetic term and a random potential term. The kinetic energy allows the particles to hop from site to site, while the random potential influences their motion through the material. When the disorder is sufficiently strong, these particles become trapped in a localized region and can no longer spread to conduct electricity.

This phenomenon is known as *Anderson localization*, and it effectively turns the material into an insulator. This is in sharp contrast to the behavior of electrons in ideal, perfectly ordered crystals, which naturally act as conductors.

In the last decades, the study of random operators has become an important field of mathematical physics.

The two important methods that have helped to prove under which conditions on the disorder level Anderson localization holds are the *multiscale analysis* (MSA), developed by Fröhlich and Spencer [FS83], and the *fractional moment method* (FMM) by Aizenman and Molchanov [AM93]. The multiscale analysis method develops with the bound of the second moment of the operator's resolvent, whereas the fractional moment method utilizes its fractional powers. In this thesis, we are going to focus on the latter, combined with the self-avoiding-walks method.

Studies in this field also differentiate between two variations of the Anderson model. The *standard model* considers nearest-neighbour hopping, while the *fractional model* allows particles to make jumps over arbitrarily long distances. As a result, the fractional moments of the resolvent operator decay exponentially or polynomially, respectively.

Although the two models are different, the proof structures are similar. In both cases, the fractional moment method can be combined with self-avoiding walks (SAW). The self-avoiding-walk approach organizes the expansion of the resolvent in terms of paths that do not visit the same site more than once. This gives a better way of counting the possible paths and can therefore improve the disorder threshold above which localization can be proved. This approach was used by J. Schenker [Sch15] for the standard Anderson model and was later adapted to the fractional model by M. Disertori, R. Escobar, and C. Rojas-Molina [DERM24].

In fact, this thesis considers a generalized operator that allows us to study both types of models within the same framework. The goal is to show how the use of self-avoiding-walk (SAW) iterations on fractional moments of the resolvent can improve the disorder threshold above which localization can be proved.

Structure of the thesis

In Chapter 1, we introduce the Anderson model, more specifically, we clarify the distinction between the nearest-sites and the long-range operator, focusing on the properties of its components and its spectrum. At the end of the Chapter, we discuss the main results of this thesis.

In Chapter 2, we define spectral and dynamical localization. We also define exponential dynamical localization and show how it implies that all moments of the position operator remain bounded in time.

In Chapter 3, we introduce the Green function as the resolvent of the operator and explore how the exponential decay of its fractional powers leads to localization. Specifically, we also introduce two central analytical tools, such as the *resolvent identity* of linear operators and the resulting *a priori bound*.

In Chapter 4, we provide the preliminary definitions for self-avoiding walk (SAW) methods and obtain the main results of this thesis using a new representation for the Green function. We focus on both exponential, for the standard model, and polynomial decay for the fractional model.

In Chapter 5 we focus on the values of the disorder parameter that are proven in the thesis and compare them with previous ones. Finally, we also take a look at the open problems in the field.

Chapter 1

The Anderson Model

In this chapter, the random Schrödinger operator is the center of our attention. First, we define it as the *Hamiltonian* and discuss the physical meaning of its time-evolving solutions. At the same time, we are going to define the two variations of this model. Right after, we focus on the properties of each of their components and their spectra. Finally, we discuss the main results of this thesis.

1.1 The Hamiltonian

Transport phenomena in disordered materials are often described via discrete random Schrödinger operators. In quantum-mechanics, the *Hamiltonian* represents the total energy of the system, decomposing naturally into kinetic and potential energy. It takes the form of an infinite random matrix on the lattice $\mathbb{Z}^d$,

$$H_{\omega,\alpha} = (-\Delta)^\alpha + \lambda V_\omega, \quad \text{for } 0 < \alpha \leq 1 \quad (1.1.1)$$

where $(-\Delta)^\alpha$ is a deterministic matrix representing the kinetic energy, V_ω is a diagonal matrix with random entries representing the disordered potential, and λ is the disorder parameter.

For $\alpha = 1$, the kinetic energy is the standard discrete Laplacian, which lets the particles jump from one site to the first-neighbors.

For $\alpha < 1$, the kinetic energy is the fractional discrete Laplacian, which provides jumps of any arbitrary distance in the grid.

This operator acts on the Hilbert space of square summable sequences

$$\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d) = \left\{ u : \mathbb{Z}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \left| \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |u(x)|^2 < \infty \right. \right\}$$

with the inner product defined by $\langle u, v \rangle = \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \overline{u(x)} v(x)$.

The space $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ is exactly where the physical reality of the electron is recorded. In quantum-mechanics, the state of the system is described by a normalized wave function $\psi \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$,

$$\|\psi\|_{\ell^2}^2 = \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |\psi(x)|^2 = 1.$$

The quantity $P(x) = |\psi(x)|^2$ defines a probability mass function on the lattice $\mathbb{Z}^d$, representing the exact probability of finding the particle at site x .

The state functions are the solutions to the time-dependent Schrödinger equation $H_{\omega, \alpha} \psi(t) = i \partial_t \psi(t)$. Because the resulting time evolution operator $e^{-itH_{\omega, \alpha}}$ is unitary on $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$, the total probability is conserved at all times $t \in \mathbb{R}$:

$$\|\psi(t)\|_{\ell^2}^2 = \|e^{-itH_{\omega, \alpha}} \psi_0\|_{\ell^2}^2 = \|\psi_0\|_{\ell^2}^2 = 1. \quad (1.1.2)$$

Moreover, if the particle is initially placed at a specific site $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ with $\psi_0 = \delta_x$, the transition probability to find the particle at site $y \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ at time t is given by the squared transition amplitude:

$$P(x \rightarrow y; t) = |\langle \delta_y, e^{-itH_{\omega, \alpha}} \delta_x \rangle|^2. \quad (1.1.3)$$

As we see later, under certain conditions on the disorder parameter, this probability P tends to 0 at all times t as the distance $|x - y| \rightarrow \infty$, proving that the particle remains trapped.

The discrete Laplacian

The discrete Laplacian is the discrete analogue of the usual Laplacian $(\sum_j \partial^2 / \partial x_j^2)$. To simplify calculations and highlight the main differences, first we focus on the case $\alpha = 1$ and later we compare it with $\alpha \in (0, 1)$.

$(-\Delta)^\alpha$ for $\alpha = 1$

For the functions $u \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ it is defined by

$$-\Delta u(x) := \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d, |x-y|=1} u(x) - u(y) \quad \text{for } x \in \mathbb{Z}^d. \quad (1.1.4)$$

where $|\cdot|$ denotes the Euclidean norm.

For each site x , there are $2d$ possible y such that $|x - y| = 1$. Thus, we can define an infinite matrix such that

$$(-\Delta)(x, y) = \begin{cases} 2d & \text{if } x = y \\ -1 & \text{if } |x - y| = 1 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

The operator $-\Delta$ is bounded and self-adjoint on $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. To see boundedness, we verify **summability** for any $u \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. We can show this through the following,

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |-\Delta u(x)|^2 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left| \sum_{\substack{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d \\ |x-y|=1}} (u(x) - u(y)) \right|^2 \\ &\leq \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(2d \sum_{|x-y|=1} |u(x) - u(y)|^2 \right) \\ &\leq 2d \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(\sum_{|x-y|=1} (|u(x)|^2 + |u(y)|^2 + 2|u(x)u(y)|) \right) \\ &\leq 2d \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(2 \sum_{|x-y|=1} (|u(x)|^2 + |u(y)|^2) \right) \\ &= 2d \cdot 2 \cdot 4d \|u\|_{\ell^2}^2 = 16d^2 \|u\|_{\ell^2}^2 < \infty, \end{aligned}$$

where we applied the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality to the sum over the $2d$ neighbors, followed by Young's inequality, and finally the translation invariance of the ℓ^2 norm. This guarantees the operator is **bounded**, since

$$\frac{\|-\Delta u\|_{\ell^2}^2}{\|u\|_{\ell^2}^2} \leq 16d^2 \implies \|-\Delta\| = \sup_{u \neq 0} \frac{\|-\Delta u\|_{\ell^2}}{\|u\|_{\ell^2}} \leq 4d.$$

To prove **self-adjointness** for a bounded operator, we only need to show

symmetry. For $u, v \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$, we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 \langle u, -\Delta v \rangle &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \overline{u(x)} \left(\sum_{|x-y|=1} (v(x) - v(y)) \right) \\
 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(2d \overline{u(x)} v(x) - \sum_{|x-y|=1} \overline{u(x)} v(y) \right) \\
 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} 2d \overline{u(x)} v(x) - \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{|x-y|=1} \overline{u(y)} v(x) \\
 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} v(x) \left(\sum_{|x-y|=1} (\overline{u(x)} - \overline{u(y)}) \right) \\
 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} v(x) \overline{(-\Delta u(x))} = \langle -\Delta u, v \rangle.
 \end{aligned}$$

Here we used the Cauchy–Schwarz inequality and Fubini, justified by the absolute convergence of the double sum.

The spectrum of a bounded, self-adjoint operator is a compact subset of $\mathbb{R}$, which in this case is exactly the closed interval $[0, 4d]$. This range represents the allowed kinetic energy levels an electron can possess.

To understand the reason why we get to this interval specifically, we apply the discrete Fourier transform:

$$\mathcal{F}: \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d) \longrightarrow L^2([0, 2\pi)^d)$$

defined by

$$(\mathcal{F}u)(k) := \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{|x| \leq N} u(x) e^{-ik \cdot x}, \quad k \in [0, 2\pi)^d.$$

We first assume $u \in \ell^1(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. Because $\ell^1(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ is a dense subset of $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ and the Fourier transform $\mathcal{F}$ is unitary, we can extend the results by con-

tinuity to all functions in $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$.

$$\begin{aligned}
(\mathcal{F}(-\Delta u))(k) &= (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} (-\Delta u)(x) e^{-ik \cdot x} \\
&= (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(\sum_{|y-x|=1} (u(x) - u(y)) \right) e^{-ik \cdot x} \\
&= (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \left(2d u(x) - \sum_{|y-x|=1} u(y) \right) e^{-ik \cdot x} \\
&= 2d (\mathcal{F}u)(k) - (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{|y-x|=1} u(y) e^{-ik \cdot x} \\
&= 2d (\mathcal{F}u)(k) - (2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} u(y) \sum_{|m|=1} e^{-ik \cdot (y+m)} \quad (\text{setting } m = x - y) \\
&= 2d (\mathcal{F}u)(k) - \left((2\pi)^{-\frac{d}{2}} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} u(y) e^{-ik \cdot y} \right) \sum_{|m|=1} e^{-ik \cdot m} \\
&= 2d (\mathcal{F}u)(k) - (\mathcal{F}u)(k) \sum_{j=1}^d (e^{-ik_j} + e^{ik_j}) \\
&= \left(2 \sum_{j=1}^d (1 - \cos(k_j)) \right) (\mathcal{F}u)(k).
\end{aligned}$$

Thus, the Laplacian acts as a multiplication operator in Fourier space

$$\mathcal{F}(-\Delta)\mathcal{F}^{-1} = 2 \sum_{j=1}^d (1 - \cos(k_j)) \quad (1.1.5)$$

on $L^2([0, 2\pi)^d)$ in the momentum variable $k = (k_1, \dots, k_d)$. Since $\cos(k_j)$ oscillates between -1 and 1 , the spectrum of the discrete Laplacian is purely continuous and bounded within the interval $[0, 4d]$.

Remark 1.1.1. The discrete Laplacian has no true eigenvalues in $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. However, similar to the continuous Laplacian, it possesses plane waves as generalized eigenfunctions. For a fixed momentum $k \in [0, 2\pi)^d$, we define:

$$\phi_k(x) := e^{-ix \cdot k}.$$

While $\phi_k \notin \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ because it is not square-summable, the operator $(-\Delta)$

acts on it finally as

$$\begin{aligned}
(-\Delta\phi_k)(x) &= \sum_{|m|=1} (e^{-ix \cdot k} - e^{-i(x+m) \cdot k}) \\
&= 2d\phi_k(x) - \left(\sum_{j=1}^d 2 \cos(k_j) \right) \phi_k(x) \\
&= \left(2 \sum_{j=1}^d (1 - \cos(k_j)) \right) \phi_k(x).
\end{aligned}$$

Thus, ϕ_k is a bounded, generalized eigenfunction of $(-\Delta)$ corresponding to the eigenvalue $2 \sum_{j=1}^d (1 - \cos(k_j))$.

$(-\Delta)^\alpha$ for $0 < \alpha < 1$

The fractional kinetic operator is formally defined via the discrete Fourier transform in (1.1.5) by raising to a fractional power, which means

$$\mathcal{F}(-\Delta)^\alpha \mathcal{F}^{-1} = \left(2 \sum_{j=1}^d (1 - \cos(k_j)) \right)^\alpha.$$

Like the standard discrete Laplacian, $(-\Delta)^\alpha$ is bounded, self-adjoint, and translation-invariant.

As explained in the Introduction, the fractional operator connects arbitrarily distant sites. Consequently, for any $x \neq y$, the matrix elements $(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y)$ are never exactly zero. Instead, they exhibit a polynomial decay. In fact, there exist strictly positive constants $0 < c_{\alpha,d} \leq C_{\alpha,d} < \infty$ such that

$$\frac{c_{\alpha,d}}{|x - y|^{d+2\alpha}} \leq -(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y) \leq \frac{C_{\alpha,d}}{|x - y|^{d+2\alpha}} \quad \forall x \neq y. \quad (1.1.6)$$

Because $d + 2\alpha > d$ for any $\alpha \in (0, 1)$, this polynomial decay ensures that the off-diagonal kernel is **summable**:

$$\sum_{y \neq x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y)| \leq C_{\alpha,d} \sum_{y \neq x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \frac{1}{|x - y|^{d+2\alpha}} < \infty. \quad (1.1.7)$$

In fact we can prove the following lemma.

Lemma 1.1.2. *For any $\alpha \in (0, 1)$,*

$$\sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |(-\Delta)^\alpha(0, x)| < \infty \quad (1.1.8)$$

Proof. From (1.1.6):

$$\sum_{|x| \geq 1, x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |(-\Delta)^\alpha(0, x)| \leq C_{\alpha, d} \sum_{|x| \geq 1, x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \frac{1}{|x|^{d+2\alpha}}.$$

By standard comparison of the lattice sum with an integral on $\mathbb{R}^d$, it holds

$$\sum_{|x| \geq 1, x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \frac{1}{|x|^p} \leq C_d \int_{|z| > 1} \frac{1}{|z|^p} dz.$$

Passing to spherical coordinates in $\mathbb{R}^d$, the integral reads

$$\begin{aligned} \int_{|z| > 1} \frac{1}{|z|^p} dz &= |\mathbb{S}^{d-1}| \int_1^\infty \frac{r^{d-1}}{r^p} dr \\ &= |\mathbb{S}^{d-1}| \int_1^\infty r^{d-1-p} dr, \end{aligned}$$

where $|\mathbb{S}^{d-1}| = \frac{2\pi^{d/2}}{\Gamma(d/2)}$ denotes the surface area of the unit sphere in $\mathbb{R}^d$.

The radial integral converges if and only if the power satisfies

$$d - 1 - p < -1 \iff p > d.$$

Substituting $p = d + 2\alpha$, this condition is satisfied for all $\alpha \in (0, 1)$. $\square$

This summability is crucial because it guarantees that the diagonal entries are strictly positive, well-defined, and finite:

$$(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, x) = - \sum_{y \neq x} (-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y) \quad \forall x \in \mathbb{Z}^d. \quad (1.1.9)$$

For the entries of $(-\Delta)^\alpha$, it follows

$$(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, x) > 0 \quad \text{and} \quad (-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y) < 0 \quad (1.1.10)$$

for all $x \neq y$ in $\mathbb{Z}^d$.

Remark 1.1.3. The diagonal relation (1.1.9) is the direct fractional analogue

of the standard discrete Laplacian, where we had

$$(-\Delta)(x, x) = - \sum_{|x-y|=1} (-1) = 2d.$$

The critical distinction is that the standard Laplacian computes this value by summing over exactly $2d$ nearest neighbors. In the fractional case, as the particle can jump to any site, we sum over the entire lattice.

One can check the summability of the fractional kernel for $\alpha \in (0, 1)$ for specific values of the power.

Lemma 1.1.4. *For any $\alpha \in (0, 1)$ and $s \in \left(\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1\right)$,*

$$\sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |(-\Delta)^\alpha(0, x)|^s < \infty \quad (1.1.11)$$

Proof. From 1.1.2, substituting $p = s(d + 2\alpha)$, this condition becomes

$$s(d + 2\alpha) > d \iff s > \frac{d}{d + 2\alpha}.$$

Since $\alpha > 0$ implies $d + 2\alpha > d$; for every $s \in \left(\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1\right]$, we conclude that

$$\sum_{x \neq 0} |(-\Delta)_{0,x}^\alpha|^s \leq C_{\alpha,d}^s \sum_{x \neq 0} \frac{1}{|x|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} < \infty.$$

□

Note 1.1.5. The summability of the fractional powers is a crucial condition for the development of the SAW methods (see Chapter 4).

The Random Potential

The random potential is expressed as the multiplication operator $V_\omega(x) = \omega_x$. It is a diagonal matrix, where $\omega = (\omega_x)_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d}$ is a set of independent identically distributed real-valued random entries. Physically, V_ω represents the random electric potential created by nuclei at the sites $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$.

Definition 1.1.6 (i.i.d. random variables). Let $(\Omega, \mathcal{A}, \mathbb{P})$ be a general probability space. A family of random variables $(\omega_x)_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d}$ defined on $(\Omega, \mathcal{A}, \mathbb{P})$ is **identically distributed** if there exists a Borel probability measure μ on $\mathbb{R}$

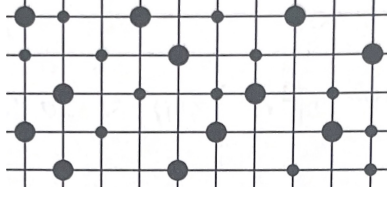


Figure 1.1: A disordered lattice system. Picture from [AW15b]

such that $\mathbb{P}(\omega_x \in A) = \mu(A)$ for all $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ and all Borel sets $A \subset \mathbb{R}$. The family $(\omega_x)_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d}$ is **independent** if

$$\mathbb{P}(\omega_{x_1} \in A_1, \dots, \omega_{x_l} \in A_l) = \prod_{j=1}^l \mathbb{P}(\omega_{x_j} \in A_j) = \prod_{j=1}^l \mu(A_j)$$

for every finite subset of distinct indices $\{x_1, \dots, x_l\} \subset \mathbb{Z}^d$ and arbitrary Borel sets $A_1, \dots, A_l \subset \mathbb{R}$.

In this thesis we assume that ω_x are uniformly distributed in the real closed interval $[-1, 1]$.

We consider then the probability space as the following infinite product space

$$(\Omega, \mathcal{A}, \mathbb{P}) = \bigotimes_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} ([-1, 1], \mathcal{B}([-1, 1]), \mu),$$

where $\mathcal{B}([-1, 1])$ is the Borel σ -algebra and $d\mu(\omega_x) = \rho(\omega_x)d\omega_x$ where the continuous density is given by $\rho = \frac{1}{2}\chi_{[-1, 1]}$.

Remark 1.1.7. It is possible to generalise the results to all absolutely continuous distributions where ρ has compact support.

As a diagonal operator, the spectrum of V_ω consists of the random entries ω_x , each corresponding to an eigenvector given by the Dirac delta $\delta_x \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$.

As for the discrete Laplacian, the random term is almost surely summable in $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$, bounded and self-adjoint. Indeed, self-adjointness of the maximal multiplication operator is a real-valued function. By definition V_ω is almost surely bounded in the closed interval $[-1, 1] \subset \mathbb{R}$, and $\|V_\omega u\|_{\ell^2}^2 \leq \|u\|_{\ell^2}^2$, which proves that it is also summable in $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$.

The Disorder Parameter

The disorder parameter is represented by $\lambda > 0$. The value of λ is a great indicator for localization, which makes it one of the central objects of interest of this thesis. It allows us to adjust the strength of the random disorder with respect to the deterministic part.

Let's consider the two extreme cases:

- For $\lambda = 0$ the Hamiltonian loses the random term and only considers the Laplacian. Without disorder, the material behaves like a perfect crystal without localization. The state functions are continuous plane waves and the spectrum is also continuous between $[0, 4d]$.
- For $\lambda \gg 1$ the kinetic hopping term becomes negligible compared to the random potential, so that $H_{\omega, \alpha} \approx \lambda V_\omega$. In this scenario electrons are unable to hop between adjacent sites, and the material behaves as an insulator. In this limit, the system exhibits localization: the eigenfunctions are localized Dirac deltas δ_x , and the almost sure spectrum is confined to the compact interval $[-\lambda, \lambda]$

1.2 The spectrum

The next goal is to determine the spectrum of $H_{\omega, \alpha}$. As proven in [Sto11, Theorem 2], the spectrum of $H_{\omega, \alpha}$ is almost surely deterministic: there exists a closed, non-random set $\Sigma \subset \mathbb{R}$ such that

$$\sigma(H_{\omega, \alpha}) = \Sigma \quad \text{for } \mathbb{P}\text{-almost all } \omega \in \Omega. \quad (1.2.1)$$

More specifically, this almost sure spectrum can be determined explicitly as the Minkowski sum of the kinetic energy spectrum and the support of the random potential distribution:

$$\Sigma = \sigma((-\Delta)^\alpha) + \lambda \text{supp}(\mu). \quad (1.2.2)$$

Recall from Section 1.1 that the spectrum of the discrete Laplacian is the band $\sigma((-\Delta)^\alpha) = [0, (4d)^\alpha]$. Since the random potential V_ω has i.i.d. entries distributed uniformly on $[-1, 1]$, the almost sure spectrum of λV_ω is the interval $[-\lambda, \lambda]$. Consequently, the almost sure spectrum of $H_{\omega, \alpha}$ is given by

the compact interval:

$$\sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = [0, (4d)^\alpha] + [-\lambda, \lambda] = [-\lambda, (4d)^\alpha + \lambda]. \quad (1.2.3)$$

This confirms that the spectrum is a bounded subset of $\mathbb{R}$.

Preliminaries on Spectral Measures

Before characterizing the physical meaning of this spectrum, we briefly recall the relevant spectral theory. The following definitions come from [RS80] and [Rud87].

Let μ be a Borel measure on $\mathbb{R}$. Consider the set of **pure points** of μ , defined by $P = \{x \in \mathbb{R} \mid \mu(\{x\}) \neq 0\}$. We define the pure point measure as

$$\mu_{\text{pp}}(X) = \mu(P \cap X)$$

for any Borel set $X \subset \mathbb{R}$. By definition, there remains a continuous measure μ_c such that $\mu_c(\{x\}) = 0$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$, satisfying $\mu = \mu_{\text{pp}} + \mu_c$. Because $\mu_{\text{pp}}(P^c) = 0$ and $\mu_c(P) = 0$, these two measures are concentrated on disjoint sets and are therefore mutually singular.

This decomposition naturally extends to spectral measures:

Proposition 1.2.1. *Let $\mathcal{H}$ be a Hilbert space, and $A : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ a bounded, self-adjoint operator. For any vector $\phi \in \mathcal{H}$ and any continuous function $f \in C(\sigma(A))$, there exists a unique Borel measure μ_ϕ on the compact set $\sigma(A)$ satisfying*

$$\langle \phi, f(A)\phi \rangle = \int_{\sigma(A)} f(\beta) d\mu_\phi(\beta).$$

The measure μ_ϕ is called the spectral measure associated with the vector ϕ .

By the spectral theorem for self-adjoint operators (see [Rud87] and [RS80]), the Hilbert space (such as $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$) decomposes uniquely into an orthogonal direct sum of invariant subspaces:

$$\mathcal{H} = \mathcal{H}_{\text{pp}} \oplus \mathcal{H}_c, \quad (1.2.4)$$

where $\mathcal{H}_{\text{pp}} = \{\phi \in \mathcal{H} \mid \mu_\phi \text{ is pure point}\}$ and $\mathcal{H}_c = \{\phi \in \mathcal{H} \mid \mu_\phi \text{ is continuous}\}$. For bounded self-adjoint operators, these subspaces define two (not neces-

sarily disjoint) subsets of the spectrum:

$$\sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = \sigma_{\text{pp}}(H_{\omega,\alpha}) \cup \sigma_{\text{c}}(H_{\omega,\alpha}), \quad (1.2.5)$$

where $\sigma_{\text{pp}}(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = \overline{\{\lambda \in \mathbb{R} \mid \lambda \text{ is an eigenvalue of } H_{\omega,\alpha}\}}$.

Remark 1.2.2. In measure theory, the continuous measure μ_{c} further decomposes uniquely into $\mu_{\text{ac}} + \mu_{\text{sc}}$, where μ_{ac} is absolutely continuous with respect to Lebesgue measure, and μ_{sc} is singular continuous. Following this principle, the continuous subspace can also be decomposed as $\mathcal{H}_{\text{c}} = \mathcal{H}_{\text{ac}} \oplus \mathcal{H}_{\text{sc}}$.

Physical Interpretation and the RAGE Theorem

From a physical perspective, states in $\mathcal{H}_{\text{pp}}$ correspond to states that remain confined to finite regions for all time, while in the continuous subspace $\mathcal{H}_{\text{c}}$, states are associated with transport and wave-packet spreading. The meaning of this heuristics is made rigorous by the RAGE theorem (named after Ruelle, Amrein, Georgescu, and Enss):

Theorem 1.2.3 (RAGE Theorem). *Let A be a self-adjoint Schrödinger operator on $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$. Then:*

(i) $\phi \in \mathcal{H}_{\text{pp}}$ if and only if

$$\lim_{R \rightarrow \infty} \sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} \|\chi_{\{|x| > R\}} e^{-itA} \phi\| = 0. \quad (1.2.6)$$

(ii) $\psi \in \mathcal{H}_{\text{c}}$ if and only if for all $R > 0$,

$$\lim_{T \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{2T} \int_{-T}^T \|\chi_{\{|x| \leq R\}} e^{-itA} \psi\|^2 dt = 0. \quad (1.2.7)$$

Here, $\chi_{\{|x| \leq R\}}$ and $\chi_{\{|x| > R\}}$ denote the projection operators corresponding to multiplication by the characteristic functions of the ball $\{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d \mid |x| \leq R\}$ and its complement, respectively.

In terms of this classification, Anderson localization corresponds exactly to the absence of continuous spectrum, ensuring that $\sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = \sigma_{\text{pp}}(H_{\omega,\alpha})$ almost surely.

1.3 Main results

There are many studies on the Anderson localization model by both physicists and mathematicians. Various discoveries have been made over the years, yet deep challenges remain.

The main result of this thesis states that there exists a critical $\lambda_0(s)$ such that for $\lambda > \lambda_0(s)$,

$$\mathbb{E} (|(H_{\omega,\alpha} - z)^{-1}(x, y)|^s) \leq \begin{cases} C_1 e^{-\mu|x-y|} & \text{if } \alpha = 1 \text{ and } s \in (0, 1) \\ C_2 \frac{1}{|x-y|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} & \text{if } \alpha \in (0, 1) \text{ and } s \in (\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1) \end{cases} \quad (1.3.1)$$

uniformly for $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$ and all $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d$, with $C_{1,2} < \infty$ and $\mu > 0$. Determining this critical threshold $\lambda_0(s)$ is a primary focus of this work. Specifically, Chapter 4 demonstrates how self-avoiding walk (SAW) techniques can be applied to significantly improve the estimates for this value.

Notice that the resolvent operator $(H_{\omega,\alpha} - z)^{-1}$ is well-defined only when $z \notin \sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha})$. If z gets closer to the spectrum, its norm tends to infinite. The *fractional moment method* was revolutionary because averaging a fractional powers of the resolvent avoids these divergences, allowing the bound to hold uniformly for all $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$. Originally, the absence of conductivity was proven using squared powers instead of fractional ones. This creates divergence problems near zero and requires complicated analytical tools like the MSA method.

The intuition behind the fractional method can be understood from the following integral, which we encounter in upcoming proofs (for example, see Lemma 3.1.4):

$$\int_{\Sigma} \frac{1}{|x|^s} dx \begin{cases} < \infty & \text{for } s \in (0, 1), \\ = \infty & \text{for } s \geq 1 \text{ (diverges at } x = 0), \end{cases}$$

where $\Sigma \subset \mathbb{R}$ is a closed interval containing the origin.

Chapter 2

Localization properties

We have understood what localization means from a heuristic point of view. In the previous chapter, it was presented as a spectral property of the Hamiltonian. In this section, we also introduce dynamical properties for localization and discuss the implications between them, as shown in [Sto11] and [Hun08]. The definitions follow those found in A. Klein [Kle07].

2.1 Types of localization

Definition 2.1.1 (Spectral localization). We say that $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ exhibits **spectral localization** if it has pure point spectrum almost surely. That is,

$$\sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = \sigma_{\text{pp}}(H_{\omega,\alpha}) \quad \text{and} \quad \sigma_{\text{c}}(H_{\omega,\alpha}) = \emptyset \quad (2.1.1)$$

for almost every realization of $\omega \in \Omega$.

Definition 2.1.2 (Dynamical localization). We say that $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ exhibits dynamical localization if for all $p > 0$ and $\phi \in \ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ of finite support,

$$\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} \| |X|^p e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}} \phi \| < \infty \quad (2.1.2)$$

for almost every realization of $\omega \in \Omega$. Here the position operator $|X|$ is defined by $(|X|\phi)(x) = |x|\phi(x)$.

Definition 2.1.3 (Exponential localization). We say that $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ exhibits exponential localization if

$$\mathbb{E} \left(\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} |\langle \delta_0, e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}} \delta_x \rangle| \right) \leq C e^{-\mu|x|} \quad (2.1.3)$$

for all $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$.

Remark 2.1.4. Dynamical localization implies that all spatial moments of the distance are bounded uniformly in time. Notice that because we are working on an infinite grid with translation invariance, we can consider any arbitrary starting site just as easily as the origin 0.

Proposition 2.1.5. *Let $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ be an Hamiltonian as defined in Section 1.1. If (2.1.2) holds, then*

$$\sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)|^2 < \infty$$

for every $p > 0$.

Proof. Assume that $\psi(y) = 0$ for $|y| > R$ (i.e., ψ has finite support). Then

$$\begin{aligned} \| |X|^p e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}} \psi \|^2 &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |\langle \delta_x, |X|^p e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}} \psi \rangle|^2 \\ &= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} \left| \sum_{|y| \leq R} e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(y, x) \psi(y) \right|^2. \end{aligned}$$

Assume that the particle is initially localized in the origin (*recall: we work under translation invariance*). Then we obtain

$$= \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} \left| \sum_{|y| \leq R} e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(y, x) \delta_0(y) \right|^2 = \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)|^2.$$

□

Remark 2.1.6. From (2.1.2), we can already deduce that the probability of transitioning from 0 to x goes to zero faster than any polynomial, but (2.1.3) makes this explicit with a direct exponential bound. In fact, the two definitions are strongly related, and we can prove the following implication.

Proposition 2.1.7. *Exponential localization implies that all moments of the position operator are bounded in time for almost every realization of V_ω , i.e., it implies dynamical localization.*

Proof. To see how (2.1.2) follows from (2.1.3), we start from the result of Proposition 2.1.5 and the fact that $|e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)| \leq 1$. It follows

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} \left(\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} \| |X|^p e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}} \psi \|^2 \right) &\leq \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} \mathbb{E} \left(\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)|^2 \right) \quad (2.1.4) \\ &\leq \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} \mathbb{E} \left(\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)| \right) \\ &\leq C \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |x|^{2p} e^{-\mu|x|} \\ &< \infty. \end{aligned}$$

□

Remark 2.1.8. Dynamical localization holds *almost surely* rather than for every single realization because our bounds control only the *expected* value over the disorder; as explained in the following Lemma.

Lemma 2.1.9. *Let $(X, \mathcal{A}, \mu)$ be a measure space and $f : X \rightarrow [-\infty, \infty]$ measurable. If $\int_X |f| d\mu < \infty$, then $|f| < \infty$ μ -almost everywhere, i.e. $\mu(\{x \in X : |f(x)| = \infty\}) = 0$.*

Proof. We proceed by contradiction. Let $A = \{x \in X : |f(x)| = \infty\}$ and assume $\mu(A) > 0$. Because $|f|$ is a non-negative function, the integral over the entire space X must be greater than or equal to the integral over A . Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} \int_X |f(x)| d\mu(x) &\geq \int_A |f(x)| d\mu(x) \\ &= \int_A \infty d\mu(x) \\ &= \infty \cdot \mu(A). \end{aligned}$$

Since we assumed $\mu(A) > 0$, the product $\infty \cdot \mu(A)$ is exactly ∞ , which directly contradicts our initial hypothesis that $\int_X |f(x)| d\mu(x) < \infty$. Therefore $\mu(A) = 0$, which precisely means that $|f(x)| < \infty$ almost everywhere. □

Chapter 3

Fractional moments

In this section, we introduce the key lemmas and theorems that help us prove localization. The goal of this section is to demonstrate the power of the FMM. First, we define the Green function, and then we prove the first fractional bound: the *a priori bound*. This provides a good example of how we use important analytic tools, such as the *resolvent identity*. Finally, using the bound on the fractional powers of the Green function, we prove that localization holds under some conditions on the disorder parameter.

3.1 The Green function

The *Green function* is defined by

$$G_{z,\alpha} := (H_{\omega,\alpha} - z)^{-1} \quad (3.1.1)$$

and is a well-defined bounded operator in $\ell(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ for all $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$, since $\sigma(H_{\omega,\alpha}) \subset \mathbb{R}$.

The following lemmas are the most important tools in the main proofs of this thesis and can be found in [Sto11].

Lemma 3.1.1 (Resolvent identity). *Let $\mathcal{H}$ be an Hilbert space. Then, for a bounded linear operator $A : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ and $z_1, z_2 \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \sigma(A)$,*

$$(A - z_1)^{-1} - (A - z_2)^{-1} = (A - z_1)^{-1}(z_1 - z_2)(A - z_2)^{-1}.$$

Moreover, if $B : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$ is also a bounded linear operator, then

$$(A - z)^{-1} - (B - z)^{-1} = (A - z)^{-1}(B - A)(B - z)^{-1}$$

for any $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \sigma(A) \cap \sigma(B)$.

The resolvent identity follows directly from algebraic manipulation of the inverses.

Lemma 3.1.2. For a self-adjoint operator A ,

$$\|(A - z)^{-1}\| \leq \frac{1}{\text{Im}(z)} \quad (3.1.2)$$

for all $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$.

Proof. For the definition of the operator norm, we know that

$$\|(A - z)^{-1}\| := \sup_{\mu \in \sigma((A - z)^{-1})} |\mu|$$

Let's consider a $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$ and write $\mu = \frac{1}{\lambda - z}$. This means:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{1}{\lambda - z} \in \sigma((A - z)^{-1}) &\iff (A - z)^{-1} - (\lambda - z)^{-1} \text{ not invertible} \\ &\iff (A - z)^{-1}(A - \lambda)(\lambda - z)^{-1} \text{ not invertible} \\ &\iff (A - \lambda) \text{ not invertible} \\ &\iff \lambda \in \sigma(A). \end{aligned}$$

Where the resolvent identity has been used in second implication.

Finally we obtain

$$\|(A - z)^{-1}\| = \sup_{\lambda \in \sigma(A)} \frac{1}{|\lambda - z|} = \frac{1}{\inf_{\lambda \in \sigma(A)} |\lambda - z|} = \frac{1}{\text{dist}(\sigma(A), z)}.$$

For a bounded and self-adjoint operator, we know that the spectrum is real-valued. For $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$ the minimum distance between z and $\sigma(A)$ is the imaginary component of z

$$\|(A - z)^{-1}\| \leq \frac{1}{|\text{Im}(z)|}. \quad (3.1.3)$$

□

From the resolvent identity we can obtain a new representation of the Green function, which helps us develop the successive proofs.

Proposition 3.1.3. *Let $H^{(\nu)} = H_{\omega,\alpha} + \nu\chi_{\{x\}}$, with $\nu \in \mathbb{R}$ be a perturbed Hamiltonian in the site $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$. Then*

$$G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y) = \frac{1}{\nu + G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1}} \cdot \frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)}{G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}. \quad (3.1.4)$$

Proof. We consider the perturbed Hamiltonian

$$H^{(\nu)} = H_{\omega,\alpha} + \nu\chi_{\{x\}}.$$

Its Green function is denoted by $G_z^{(\nu)}$. Applying the resolvent identity, we find

$$(H_{\omega,\alpha} - z)^{-1} = (H^{(\nu)} - z)^{-1} + \nu(H_{\omega,\alpha} - z)^{-1}\chi_{\{x\}}(H^{(\nu)} - z)^{-1}.$$

Taking the matrix elements, this yields

$$G_{z,\alpha}(x, y) = G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y) + \nu G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y). \quad (3.1.5)$$

Solving for $G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y)$, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y) &= \frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)}{1 + \nu G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)} \\ &= \frac{1}{\nu + G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1}} \cdot \frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)}{G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}. \end{aligned} \quad (3.1.6)$$

□

The *a priori bound* is a central estimate for the main proof in Section 4. It provides a preliminary bound for the fractional moments of the Green function, and it holds for all values of α . The following proof is found in [Sto11].

Lemma 3.1.4 (A priori bound). *Let $s \in (0, 1)$ and $\alpha \in (0, 1]$. Then it holds*

$$\mathbb{E}(|G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)|^s) \leq \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \quad (3.1.7)$$

for all $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$, $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$, and $\lambda > 0$.

Proof of the a priori bound. For a fixed $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$, we write $\omega = (\hat{\omega}, \omega_x)$, where $\hat{\omega} = (\omega_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}^d \setminus \{x\}}$. We can separate the dependence of $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ on ω_x and $\hat{\omega}$ as

$$H_{\omega,\alpha} = (-\Delta)^\alpha + \lambda V_{\hat{\omega}} + \lambda \omega_x \chi_{\{x\}} = H_{\hat{\omega},\alpha} + \lambda \omega_x \chi_{\{x\}}.$$

From Proposition 3.1.3, for $\nu = \lambda\omega_x$ in the sites (x, x) , it follows

$$G_{z,\alpha}(x, x) = \frac{1}{a + \lambda\omega_x} \quad \text{with } a = \frac{1}{\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}. \quad (3.1.8)$$

where $\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}$ denotes the Green function of $H_{\hat{\omega},\alpha}$.

Note that this expression is well-defined because $\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)$ cannot be zero. Since

$$\text{Im}\hat{G}_z(x, x) = \frac{\text{Im}(z)}{(H_{\hat{\omega},\alpha} - \text{Re}(z))^2 + \text{Im}(z)^2}(x, x) \quad (3.1.9)$$

always shares the same sign as $\text{Im}(z)$, whenever $\text{Im}(z) > 0$, we strictly have $\text{Im}\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x) > 0$.

The crucial fact is that the complex number a does not depend on ω_x . Thus, defining the partial expectation over the single site x as $\mathbb{E}_x(\dots) := \int \dots \rho(\omega_x) d\omega_x$, and using the uniform density $\rho(\omega_x) = \frac{1}{2}\chi_{[-1,1]}$, we find

$$\mathbb{E}_x(|G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)|^s) = \frac{1}{2\lambda^s} \int_{-1}^1 \frac{d\omega_x}{|\frac{a}{\lambda} + \omega_x|^s} \leq \frac{1}{2\lambda^s} \int_{-1}^1 \frac{d\omega_x}{|\omega_x|^s} = \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s}. \quad (3.1.10)$$

The resulting constant $\frac{1}{1-s}$ is independent of λ and a , and therefore independent of the remaining random variables $\hat{\omega}$, the energy z , and the site x .

Because averaging over ω_x yields a uniform bound that no longer depends on any of the remaining random parameters, we can easily take the full expectation over all other sites. Thus,

$$\mathbb{E}(|G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)|^s) \leq \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s}.$$

□

3.2 Localization at large disorder

The following two theorems establish the main goal of this thesis. In this Chapter, we are going to use their results to check which type of localization follow. The whole proof of Theorem 3.2.1 and Theorem 3.2.2 need both FMM and SAW, so they are given in Chapter 4.

Theorem 3.2.1 (Schenker [Sch15]). *Let $\alpha = 1$ and $s \in (0, 1)$. Then for all*

$\lambda > \lambda_0(s)$,

$$\mathbb{E}(|G_{z,\alpha}(x,y)|^s) \leq \frac{C}{(1-s)\lambda^s} e^{-\mu|x-y|} \quad \forall x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d, x \neq y, \quad (3.2.1)$$

uniformly in $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$ with $C < \infty$ and $\mu > 0$, where $\lambda_0(s) := \left(\frac{1}{(1-s)R_{\chi^D}}\right)^{\frac{1}{s}}$ and R_{χ^D} is defined with self-avoiding walks in Chapter 4.

Theorem 3.2.2 (Disertori, Escobar, Rojas-Molina [DERM24]). *Let $\alpha \in (0, 1)$ and $s \in (\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1)$. Then for all $\lambda > \lambda_0(s)$*

$$\mathbb{E}[|G_{z,\alpha}(x,y)|^s] \leq \frac{K}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \frac{1}{|x-y|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} \quad \forall x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d, x \neq y, \quad (3.2.2)$$

uniformly in $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$ with $K < \infty$, where $\lambda_0(s) := \left(\frac{1}{(1-s)R_{\chi^D}}\right)^{\frac{1}{s}}$ and R_{χ^D} is defined with self-avoiding walks in Chapter 4.

Remark 3.2.3. From Theorem 3.2.1 we obtain exponential decay of the fractional moments of the Green function for $\alpha = 1$, while Theorem 3.2.2 yields polynomial decay for $\alpha \in (0, 1)$. We prove both, in order to show how this difference in decay affects the localization conditions obtained for each model.

3.2.1 From fractional moments to localization

In this subsection we aim to prove localization, namely spectral localization for $\alpha \in (0, 1]$ (Theorem 3.2.5), and exponential localization for $\alpha = 1$ (Theorem 3.2.9). In particular, we also see that for $\alpha \in (0, 1)$, a partial form of dynamical localization holds (Theorem 3.2.10).

Spectral localization

We obtain spectral localization for all $\alpha \in (0, 1]$ through the Simon-Wolff criterion, as shown in [DERM24].

Proposition 3.2.4 (Simon-Wolff criterion). *Let $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ be a random operator in $\ell^2(\mathbb{Z}^d)$ with a random potential whose conditional-single site distribution is absolutely continuous. Then if for Lebesgue-almost every $E \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbb{P}$ -almost all ω ,*

$$\lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(x,y)|^2 < \infty, \quad (3.2.3)$$

then $H_{\omega,\alpha}$ has only pure point spectrum.

Proof can be found in [AW15b, Chapter 5].

Theorem 3.2.5. *Assume that Theorem 3.2.1 and 3.2.2. Then, under those conditions, the spectrum of $H_{\omega, \alpha}$ consists only of pure point spectrum for $\mathbb{P}$ -a.e. realization of V_ω .*

Proof from [DERM24]. From the Theorems 3.2.1 and 3.2.2 we notice that for all $\lambda > \lambda_0$,

$$\sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s] = \frac{C}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} e^{-\mu|x-y|} < \infty \quad \text{for all } \mu > 0 \quad (3.2.4)$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s] &= \frac{K}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \frac{1}{|x-y|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} \\ &< \infty \quad \text{for all } s \in \left(\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1\right) \quad (\text{See Section 1.1}) \end{aligned} \quad (3.2.5)$$

hold uniformly for $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$ and $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ fixed.

Note that $\lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta}(x, y)|^2$ always exists (but may be infinite) since

$$\sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta}(x, y)|^2 = [(E - H_{\alpha, \omega})^2 + \eta^2]^{-1}(x, x)$$

which is a monotone function in η . Moreover, [Sto11, Proposition 5.1] says that

$$\sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^2] \leq \frac{C}{\eta} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s]$$

holds for all $\alpha \in (0, 1]$ and diverges when $\eta \rightarrow 0$.

Given these obstacles, we argue differently with the following strategy,

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} \left[\left(\lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^2 \right)^{\frac{s}{2}} \right] &= \mathbb{E} \left[\lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \left(\sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^2 \right)^{\frac{s}{2}} \right] \\ &\leq \mathbb{E} \left[\lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s \right] \\ &\leq \liminf_{\eta \downarrow 0} \sum_{y \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s] < \infty, \end{aligned}$$

where in the first two steps we used that the function $x \mapsto x^{\frac{s}{2}}$ is monotone

and $|\sum_n a_n|^s \leq \sum_n |a_n|^s$ for all $a_n \geq 0$ and $0 < s < 1$. The last two inequalities follow by Fatou, (3.2.4) and (3.2.5). $\square$

Dynamical localization

In order to prove the next theorems, we need the following definition.

Definition 3.2.6. Let Σ be the almost sure spectrum of $H_{\omega,\alpha}$. The *eigenfunction correlator* is the random variable

$$Q_\omega(x, y, \Sigma) := \sup_{\substack{g \in C_c(\Sigma) \\ |g| \leq 1}} |g(H_{\omega,\alpha})(x, y)|, \quad x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d. \quad (3.2.6)$$

Remark 3.2.7. Since $\|e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}\| = 1$, all matrix entries have modulus at most 1, hence

$$\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)|^2 \leq \sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} |e^{-itH_{\omega,\alpha}}(0, x)| \leq Q_\omega(0, x, \Sigma),$$

Thus a bound on $\mathbb{E}[Q_\omega(0, x, \Sigma)]$ controls the expected transition probabilities, which is the key to dynamical localization.

The following Proposition is the main step for the proofs of Theorem 3.2.9 and Theorem 3.2.10.

Proposition 3.2.8. *Let Σ be the almost sure spectrum of $H_{\omega,\alpha}$. Then,*

$$\mathbb{E}[Q_\omega(x, y, \Sigma)] \leq C_s \lim_{|\eta| \downarrow 0} \int_{\Sigma} \mathbb{E}[|G(x, y; E + i\eta)|^s] dE \quad (3.2.7)$$

with a finite constant $C_s < \infty$.

Theorem 3.2.9. *Let Σ be the almost sure spectrum of $H_{\omega,\alpha}$. Then for $\alpha = 1$ we obtain exponential (and consequently dynamical) localization.*

Proof. We apply Theorem 3.2.1 and Proposition 3.2.8

$$\mathbb{E}[Q(x, 0, \Sigma)] \leq C_s \frac{C}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \lim_{|\eta| \downarrow 0} \int_{\Sigma} \mathbb{E}[e^{-\mu|x-y|}] dE \leq C_s |\Sigma| \frac{C}{(1-s)\lambda^s} e^{-\mu|x-y|}, \quad (3.2.8)$$

as we wanted. $\square$

Theorem 3.2.10. *Let Σ be the almost sure spectrum of $H_{\omega,\alpha}$. Then for $\alpha \in (0, 1)$ and $0 < \beta < s(d + 2\alpha) - d$, we have for a.e. $\omega \in \Omega$*

$$\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} \sum_{x \neq 0} |x|^\beta |e^{-itH_{\alpha,\omega}}(0, x)|^2 < \infty. \quad (3.2.9)$$

In particular, if $\alpha > \frac{1}{2}$, the first moment of the wave function initially localized at the origin and evolving under the action of $H_{\alpha,\omega}$ is finite.

Proof. We apply Theorem 3.2.2 and Proposition 3.2.8, and obtain

$$\mathbb{E}[Q(x, 0, \Sigma)] \leq \frac{C_s K}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \sum_{x \neq 0} |x|^\beta \frac{1}{|x|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} < \infty,$$

which converges for all $\beta < s(d + 2\alpha) - d$. Since $0 \leq Q(x, 0, \Sigma) \leq 1$, we can conclude that for almost every $\omega \in \Omega$,

$$\sup_{t \in \mathbb{R}} \sum_{x \neq 0} |x|^\beta |e^{-itH_{\alpha,\omega}}(0, x)|^2 \leq \sum_{x \neq 0} |x|^\beta Q(x, 0)^2 \leq \sum_{x \neq 0} |x|^\beta Q(x, 0) < \infty,$$

holds, and yields the required dynamical bounds . $\square$

The following proof follows the steps of the one in [AW15b].

Proof of Proposition 3.2.8. As we mentioned in Definition 3.2.6, for bounded sets $\Sigma \subset \mathbb{R}$

$$Q_\omega(x, y, \Sigma) := \sup_{\substack{g \in C_c(\Sigma) \\ |g| \leq 1}} |g(H_{\omega,\alpha})(x, y)|.$$

For $g \in C_c(\Sigma)$ and $\xi \in \mathbb{R}$, it holds

$$g(\xi) = \lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \frac{\eta}{\pi} \int \frac{g(E)}{(\xi - E)^2 + \eta^2} dE.$$

which for $|g| \leq 1$ means

$$Q(x, y, \Sigma) \leq \lim_{\eta \downarrow 0} \frac{1}{\pi} \int_{\Sigma} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)| dE. \quad (3.2.10)$$

Averaging the positive function $|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|$ gives

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{F}[Q(x, y; I)] &\leq \mathbb{E} \left[\liminf_{\eta \downarrow 0} \frac{1}{\pi} \int_I |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)| dE \right] \\ &\leq \liminf_{\eta \downarrow 0} \frac{1}{\pi} \mathbb{E} \left[\int_I |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)| dE \right] \\ &\leq \liminf_{\eta \downarrow 0} \frac{1}{\pi} \int_I \mathbb{E}[|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|] dE. \end{aligned} \quad (3.2.11)$$

using Fatou and Fubini. For $z = E + i\eta$ with $\eta > 0$, the operator

$$\operatorname{Im} G_{z,\alpha} = \eta((H_{\omega,\alpha} - E)^2 + \eta^2)^{-1}$$

is bounded, self-adjoint and strictly positive, so it has a unique positive square root $\sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{z,\alpha}}$. We can therefore apply the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality and obtain

$$\begin{aligned} |\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(x, y)| &= |\langle \sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}} \delta_x, \sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}} \delta_y \rangle| \\ &\leq \|\sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}} \delta_x\| \|\sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}} \delta_y\| \\ &= \sqrt{\operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(x, x) \operatorname{Im} G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(y, y)}. \end{aligned} \quad (3.2.12)$$

Splitting the integrand in (3.2.11) into powers $(1-s)$ and s and applying (3.2.12) to just the $1-s$ power we get

$$\begin{aligned} &\left(\int_I \mathbb{E}[|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|] dE \right)^2 \\ &= \left(\int_I \mathbb{E} [|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^{1-s} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^s] dE \right)^2 \\ &\leq \left(\int_I \mathbb{E} \left[(|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)| |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(y, y)|)^{\frac{1-s}{2}} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^s \right] dE \right)^2 \\ &= \left(\int_I \mathbb{E} \left[\left(|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)|^{\frac{1-s}{2}} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^{\frac{s}{2}} \right) \right. \right. \\ &\quad \left. \left. \times \left(|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(y, y)|^{\frac{1-s}{2}} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^{\frac{s}{2}} \right) \right] dE \right)^2 \\ &\leq \left(\int_I \mathbb{E}[|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)|^{1-s} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^s] dE \right) \\ &\quad \times \left(\int_I \mathbb{E}[|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(y, y)|^{1-s} |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^s] dE \right), \end{aligned} \quad (3.2.13)$$

where we again applied the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality in the last step. Since we are working under translation invariance, we focus now on bounding one of the integrals, knowing that everything holds for the other too.

Using the subadditivity property $|\sum_n a_n|^s \leq \sum_n |a_n|^s$ we estimate

$$|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, y)|^s \leq \frac{1}{2^s} (|G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(x, y)|^s + |G_{E-i\eta,\alpha}(x, y)|^s). \quad (3.2.14)$$

If we substitute this split back into the main integral, we end up with two separate terms to bound: one containing $+i\eta$ and one containing $-i\eta$. Since $|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)| = |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E-i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)|$, the results that we obtain for the first term, are the same as for the second, so we can limit our bound to

$$I := |\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta,\alpha})(x, x)|^{1-s} |G_{E+i\eta,\alpha}(x, y)|^s. \quad (3.2.15)$$

Now, we consider Proposition 3.1.3, and notice that

$$\frac{G_z^{(\nu)}(x, y)}{G_z^{(\nu)}(x, x)} = \frac{\frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)}{1+\nu G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}}{\frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}{1+\nu G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}} = \frac{G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)}{G_{z,\alpha}(x, x)}.$$

For $\nu = \zeta - \lambda\omega_x$, we obtain the operator $H_\zeta := H_{\omega,\alpha} + (\zeta - \lambda\omega_x)\chi_{\{x\}}$, where the random potential in x is replaced with $\zeta \in \mathbb{R}$.

We recall from the *a priori bound* (Lemma 3.1.4)

$$\hat{H}_{\omega,\alpha} := H - \lambda\omega_x \chi_{\{x\}} \quad \text{and} \quad G_{z,\alpha}(x, x) = \frac{1}{\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x}.$$

From Proposition 3.1.3, we get

$$H_\zeta = \hat{H}_{\omega,\alpha} + \zeta \chi_{\{x\}} \quad \text{and} \quad G_{z,\alpha}^{(\zeta)}(x, x) = \frac{1}{\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \zeta}.$$

This implies for (3.2.15) that

$$\begin{aligned}
& |\operatorname{Im}(G_{z,\alpha}(x, x))|^{1-s} |G_{z,\alpha}(x, y)|^s \\
&= \left| \operatorname{Im} \left(\frac{1}{\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x} \right) \right|^{1-s} \left| \frac{1}{\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x} \frac{G_z^{(\zeta)}(x, y)}{G_z^{(\zeta)}(x, x)} \right|^s \\
&= \frac{|\operatorname{Im}(\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1})|^{1-s}}{|\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x|^{2-2s}} \frac{|\zeta + \hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1}|^s}{|\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x|^s} |G_z^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s \\
&\leq \frac{|\operatorname{Im}(\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1})|^{1-s}}{|\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x|^{2-s}} \frac{(|\zeta|^s + |\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1}|^s)}{|\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1} + \lambda\omega_x|^s} |G_z^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s =: L
\end{aligned}$$

where we used $|\sum_n a_n|^s \leq \sum_n |a_n|^s$ in the last step.

Now, we average I over $\lambda\omega_x$, and obtain the following bound,

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathbb{E}_x[I] &\leq \mathbb{E}_x[L] \\
&= (|\zeta|^s + |a|^s) \cdot |G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s \cdot \frac{1}{2} \int_{-1}^1 \frac{|\operatorname{Im}(a)|^{1-s}}{|\lambda\omega_x - a|^{2-s}} d\omega_x \\
&= (|\zeta|^s + |a|^s) \cdot |G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s \cdot \frac{1}{2\lambda} \int_{-\lambda}^{\lambda} \frac{|\operatorname{Im}(a)|^{1-s}}{|v - a|^{2-2s}} \frac{1}{|v - a|^s} dv,
\end{aligned}$$

with $a = -\hat{G}_{z,\alpha}(x, x)^{-1}$ and $v = \lambda\omega_x$. From Lemma 3.2.11, noting that $(|\zeta|^s + |a|^s) \leq (|\zeta|^s + 1) \max\{1, |a|^s\}$, this reduces to

$$\mathbb{E}_x[I] \leq (|\zeta|^s + 1) C_s(\lambda) |G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s,$$

where $C_s(\lambda) := C_s/\lambda$ contains the disorder parameter λ .

We can average over ζ , and define a new distribution density

$$\rho_\zeta = \frac{1}{Z} (|\zeta|^s + 1)^{-1} \cdot \frac{1}{2} \chi_{[-1,1]},$$

with $Z = \int_{-1}^1 \frac{1}{2} (|\zeta|^s + 1)^{-1} d\zeta$ to normalize. This definition of density function is valid since

- (a) ρ_ζ is non-negative, since we consider $|\zeta|$.
- (b) ρ_ζ is continuous and $\int_{\mathbb{R}} \rho_\zeta d\zeta = 1$.

Integrating both sides, we obtain

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} \mathbb{E}_x[I] \rho_\zeta d\zeta = \mathbb{E}_x[I] \cdot \int_{\mathbb{R}} \rho_\zeta d\zeta = \mathbb{E}_x[I]$$

and

$$\begin{aligned}
& \int_{\mathbb{R}} \frac{C_s(\lambda)}{Z} (|\zeta|^s + 1)(|\zeta|^s + 1)^{-1} \cdot \frac{1}{2} \chi_{[-1,1]} |G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s d\zeta \\
&= \frac{C_s(\lambda)}{Z} \int_{-1}^1 \frac{1}{2} |G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s d\zeta \\
&= \frac{C_s(\lambda)}{Z} \mathbb{E}_x \left[|G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s \right].
\end{aligned}$$

Averaging over all $(w_n)_{n \in \mathbb{Z}^d}$ yields

$$\mathbb{E}[I] \leq \frac{C_s(\lambda)}{Z} \mathbb{E} \left[|G_{E+i\eta}^{(\zeta)}(x, y)|^s \right].$$

Finally, substituting these bounds back into the two factors of our original Cauchy-Schwarz inequality (3.2.13), we obtain

$$\left(\int_{\Sigma} \mathbb{E}[|\operatorname{Im}(G_{E+i\eta, \alpha})(x, y)|] dE \right)^2 \leq (C_s)^2 \left(\int_{\Sigma} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s] dE \right)^2.$$

Taking the square root of both sides and substituting this result back into (3.2.11), we can take the limit $|\eta| \downarrow 0$

$$\mathbb{E}[Q_{\omega}(x, y; \Sigma)] \leq C_s \liminf_{|\eta| \downarrow 0} \int_{\Sigma} \mathbb{E}[|G_{E+i\eta, \alpha}(x, y)|^s] dE. \quad (3.2.16)$$

This concludes the proof. $\square$

Lemma 3.2.11. *Let $\rho \geq 0$ be a measurable function such that $\sup_{v \in \mathbb{R}} (1 + |v|^s) \rho(v) < \infty$ for some $s \in (0, 1)$. Then, there exists a constant $C_s(\rho) < \infty$ such that for any $\gamma \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$,*

$$\max\{1, |\gamma|^s\} \int_{\mathbb{R}} \frac{|\operatorname{Im} \gamma|^{1-s}}{|v - \gamma|^{2-2s}} \frac{\rho(v)}{|v - \gamma|^s} dv \leq C_s(\rho). \quad (3.2.17)$$

Proof. For the complete proof look [AW15b, Lemma 7.8]. $\square$

Remark 3.2.12. For Proposition 3.2.8, we use $\rho_{\lambda}(v) = \frac{1}{2\lambda} \chi_{[-\lambda, \lambda]}(v)$. Since

$$\sup_{v \in \mathbb{R}} (1 + |v|^s) \rho_{\lambda}(v) = \frac{1 + \lambda^s}{2\lambda} < \infty.$$

we can bound with $C_s(\lambda)$, which implicitly depends on the disorder parameter λ .

Chapter 4

SAW representation

In this chapter, we are going to use the SAW representation method in order to prove Theorem 3.2.1 and Theorem 3.2.2. First, we give the main definitions regarding self-avoiding walks. Second, we develop a new representation for the Green function using SAWs and finally use it to prove the two theorems.

4.1 SAW Definitions

All the definitions regarding SAW are generated by the fractional powers of the discrete Laplacian. We find them in [MS13] and in [DERM24], where the latter shows the generalization for the fractional Anderson model.

Definition 4.1.1 (Step weight kernel). Let $\alpha \in (0, 1]$ and $s \in (0, 1)$. Then we define

$$D(x, y) := |(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, y)|^s,$$

as the *step weight kernel*.

Recall Lemma 1.1.4. For $s \in \left(\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1\right)$, $D(x, y)$ generates a transition probability

$$p(x \rightarrow y) := \frac{D(x, y)}{\sum_{w \neq x} D(x, w)},$$

for $x \neq y$ in $\mathbb{Z}^d$, and is translation-invariant.

Remark 4.1.2. For $\alpha = 1$ the step weight kernel takes the form $D(x, y) = (2d\delta_{x=y} + \delta_{|x-y|=1})^s$.

Because the transition probability excludes the diagonal $w = x$, the $2d$

term vanishes from the transitions, and

$$\sum_{w \neq x} D(x, w) = \sum_{w: |x-w|=1} 1 = 2d.$$

Thus, the transition probability perfectly gives a random walk on $\mathbb{Z}^d$

$$p(x \rightarrow y) = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{2d} & \text{if } |x - y| = 1, \\ 0 & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

and is well-defined for all $s \in (0, 1)$.

Definition 4.1.3 (Self-Avoiding Walk). A **self-avoiding walk** on the integer lattice $\mathbb{Z}^d$ of length $N \in \mathbb{N}_0$ is an ordered $(N + 1)$ -tuple of distinct lattice sites

$$\gamma = (\gamma_0, \gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_N) \in (\mathbb{Z}^d)^{N+1}$$

such that $\gamma_i \neq \gamma_j$ for all $i \neq j$.

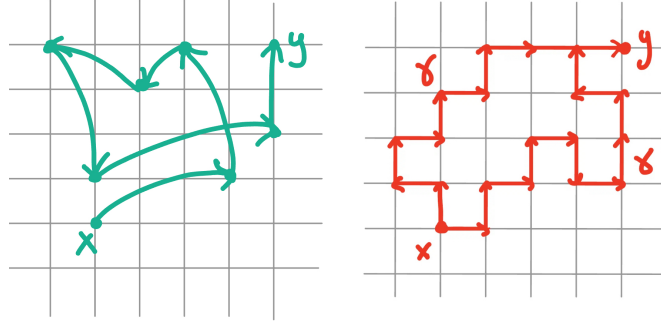


Figure 4.1: self-avoiding walks from x to y with long range and near-neighbors jumps

Definition 4.1.4 (Sets of Self-Avoiding Walks). Let $\Lambda \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^d$. For any $x, y \in \Lambda$ and $N \in \mathbb{N}_0$, we get

- (i) $\mathcal{S}_N^{(\Lambda)}(y, x)$ denotes the set of all self-avoiding walks of length N contained entirely in Λ , starting at $\gamma_0 = x$ and terminating at $\gamma_N = y$. When $\Lambda = \mathbb{Z}^d$, we simply write $\mathcal{S}_N(y, x)$.
- (ii) $\mathcal{S}_N^{(\Lambda)}(x) := \bigcup_{y \in \Lambda} \mathcal{S}_N^{(\Lambda)}(y, x)$ denotes the set of all self-avoiding walks of length N in Λ starting at x .

- (iii) $c_N^D := \sum_x \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_N(0,x)} \prod_{j=0}^{N-1} D(\gamma_j, \gamma_{j+1})$ denotes the total number of self-avoiding walks of length N on $\mathbb{Z}^d$ originating from a fixed site (e.g., the origin 0), which is independent of the starting vertex by translation invariance and is generated by D .

Definition 4.1.5 (Correlation Function). For a parameter $\beta \geq 0$, the self-avoiding walk correlation function $C_\beta^D(y-x)$ between two vertices $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ is

$$C_\beta^D(y-x) := \sum_{N=0}^{\infty} \beta^N \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_N(x,y)} \prod_{j=0}^{N-1} D(\gamma_j, \gamma_{j+1}),$$

By translation invariance, $C_\beta^D(y-x) = C_\beta^D(0, y-x) = C_\beta^D(x, y)$, which depends only on the difference $y-x$.

Definition 4.1.6 (Susceptibility). The susceptibility $\chi^D(\beta)$ of self-avoiding walks is the sum of the two-point correlation function over all endpoints

$$\chi^D(\beta) := \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} C_\beta^D(x) = \sum_{N=0}^{\infty} \beta^N c_N^D.$$

The series converges uniformly and absolutely if and only if $\beta < R_{\chi^D}$, where R_{χ^D} is the critical radius of convergence. It is defined by

$$R_{\chi^D} := \frac{1}{\lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} (c_N^D)^{1/N}}.$$

This limit exists, is positive, and satisfies a strict inequality dependent on the summability of the fractional kernel.

Claim 4.1.7. Let R_{χ^D} be the radius of convergence of self-avoiding walks on $\mathbb{Z}^d$ generated by D . Then

$$R_{\chi^D} \geq \frac{1}{\sum_{w \neq 0} D(0, w)} > 0.$$

Proof based on [DERM24]. Consider the sum of all possible jumps weighted by D . For paths of length $N=2$, we can bound the sum of these two-step jumps as follows:

$$\sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_2(0,x)} D(0, \gamma_1) D(\gamma_1, x) \leq \left(\sum_{w \neq 0} D(0, w) \right)^2.$$

By repeating this logic for any path of length $N \geq 1$, we find an upper bound:

$$\sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{\gamma \in S_N(0, x)} \prod_{j=0}^{N-1} D(\gamma_j, \gamma_{j+1}) \leq \left(\sum_{z \neq 0} D(0, z) \right)^N.$$

For the overall power series to converge, multiplying this bound by the parameter β must give a value strictly less than 1. Therefore, the radius of convergence must be at least $R_{\chi^D} \geq \left(\sum_{z \neq 0} D(0, z) \right)^{-1}$. $\square$

Remark 4.1.8. For $\alpha = 1$, we define the inverse of the radius of convergence as the *connective constant*, denoted by $R_{\chi^D}^{-1} =: \mu_d$. We can get a slightly better estimate for μ_d , namely $\mu_d \leq 2d - 1$ (see Claim 4.1.9), instead of $\mu_d \leq 2d$ (implied by Claim 4.1.7). The factor of $2d - 1$ comes from the self-avoiding property, which stops the walk from immediately returning to the previously visited site.

Claim 4.1.9. Let μ_d be the connective constant (or growth rate) of self-avoiding walks on $\mathbb{Z}^d$. Then:

$$\mu_d \leq 2d - 1.$$

Proof. Let c_N denote the number of self-avoiding walks (SAWs) of length N starting from the origin $0 \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ for $\alpha = 1$, and let $S_N(0, x)$ denote the set of such walks ending at $x \in \mathbb{Z}^d$. Since $D(x, y) = \delta_{|x-y|=1}$ for $x \neq y$,

$$c_N := \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |S_N(0, x)| = \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{\gamma \in S_N(0, x)} 1.$$

Consider the generating function (*susceptibility*) with parameter $\beta > 0$ in $\mathbb{C}$, such that

$$\sum_{N=0}^{\infty} |\beta|^N c_N = \sum_{N=0}^{\infty} |\beta|^N \sum_{x \in \mathbb{Z}^d} |S_N(0, x)|.$$

For $N = 0$, $c_0 = 0$. For $N \geq 1$, a walk cannot immediately step back onto the previous vertex. Thus,

- The first step has at most $2d$ choices.
- Each of the subsequent $N - 1$ steps has at most $2d - 1$ choices.

This gives the following upper bound,

$$c_N \leq 2d(2d - 1)^{N-1}, \quad \text{for } N \geq 1.$$

and use it, such that

$$\begin{aligned}
\sum_{N=0}^{\infty} |\beta|^N c_N &\leq \sum_{N=1}^{\infty} |\beta|^N (2d)(2d-1)^{N-1} \\
&= 2d|\beta| \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} |\beta|^k (2d-1)^k \quad (\text{setting } k = N-1) \\
&= 2d|\beta| \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} (|\beta|(2d-1))^k.
\end{aligned}$$

This geometric series converges if and only if

$$|\beta|(2d-1) < 1 \iff |\beta| < \frac{1}{2d-1} =: R$$

where $R = \frac{1}{2d-1}$ is the radius of convergence of the bounding series.

The radius of convergence R_{χ^D} of the original series $\sum_{N=0}^{\infty} c_N |\beta|^N$ is

$$R_{\chi^D} = \frac{1}{\limsup_{N \rightarrow \infty} c_N^{1/N}} = \frac{1}{\mu_d}.$$

Since the original series is bounded term-by-term by a series that converges for $|\beta| < R$, the true radius of convergence must satisfy:

$$R_{\chi^D} \geq R \implies \frac{1}{\mu_d} \geq \frac{1}{2d-1}.$$

Taking the reciprocal yields:

$$\mu_d \leq 2d-1.$$

□

4.2 SAW representation of G_z

The proofs in this Section follow the ones given by Schenker in [Sch15] and [DERM24]. We are going to work with the Green function defined on a volume. Therefore, for any $\Lambda \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^d$ (finite or infinite), the Green function changes to

$$G_{z,\alpha}^{\Lambda}(x,y) := \begin{cases} (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda} - z)^{-1}(x,y) & \text{if } x,y \in \Lambda, \\ 0 & \text{otherwise,} \end{cases} \quad (4.2.1)$$

where $H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z \in \mathbb{C}^{\Lambda \times \Lambda}$ is the matrix obtained by restricting $H_{\omega,\alpha} - z$ to Λ . In this thesis we consider $\Lambda = \mathbb{Z}^d$, but we keep the notation Λ to show that the same result holds for any volume.

Also, notice that $H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z$ is still invertible for all $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$. In this section, to make the calculations simpler, we write $G^\Lambda(x, y)$ instead of $G_{z,\alpha}^\Lambda(x, y)$. Following the standard notation for the fractional Anderson model, we define $\Delta^\alpha(x, x_2) := -(-\Delta)^\alpha(x, x_2)$.

The first SAW representation is given by the following Claim.

Claim 4.2.1.

$$G^\Lambda(x, y) = G^\Lambda(x, x) \sum_{x_1 \in \Lambda \setminus \{x\}} \Delta^\alpha(x, x_1) G^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}}(x_1, y), \quad (4.2.2)$$

for all $x \neq y$ in Λ .

Proof. Using the resolvent identity for $A = (H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z)$ and $B = (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}} - z)$, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} & (H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z)^{-1} - (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}} - z)^{-1} \\ &= -(H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z)^{-1} \left(H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}}) \right) (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}} - z)^{-1}. \end{aligned}$$

The kinetic operator $(-\Delta)^\alpha$ could connect all arbitrarily distant sites in the lattice, not just nearest neighbors. Therefore, $\left(H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}}) \right)$ isolates all off-diagonal jumps originating from or terminating at x . This means

$$H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}}) = \sum_{w \in \Lambda \setminus \{x\}} (-\Delta)^\alpha(x, w) (\langle \delta_w, \cdot \rangle \delta_x + \langle \delta_x, \cdot \rangle \delta_w) =: T_{x,w}.$$

Now, considering the matrix elements for (x, y) with $x \neq y$ and applying matrix multiplication:

$$(H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z)^{-1}(x, y) - 0 = - \sum_{x_1, x_2 \in \Lambda} (H_{\omega,\alpha}^\Lambda - z)^{-1}(x, x_1) T_{x_1, x_2} (H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\{x\}} \oplus H_{\omega,\alpha}^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}} - z)^{-1}(x_2, y).$$

The matrix element T_{x_1, x_2} take the following values.

- If $x_1 \neq x$ and $x_2 \neq x$: $T_{x_1, x_2} = 0$: jumps that don't involve x .
- If $x_1 = x$ and $x_2 = x$: $T_{x, x} = 0$: diagonal potential term at x .

- If $x_1 = x$ and $x_2 \neq x$: $T_{x,x_2} = (-\Delta)^\alpha(x, x_2)$: is exactly the fractional kinetic jump connecting x to x_2 .

Substituting this back into the sum leaves us with:

$$G^\Lambda(x, y) = \sum_{x_1 \in \Lambda \setminus \{x\}} G^\Lambda(x, x_1) \Delta^\alpha(x, x_1) G^{\Lambda \setminus \{x\}}(x_1, y).$$

□

Theorem 4.2.2. *Let $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d$ with $x \neq y$, and let $\Lambda \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^d$. Let G^Λ be defined by in (4.2.1). It holds that*

$$G^\Lambda(x, y) = G^\Lambda(x, x) \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_n(x, y)} \left(\prod_{j=1}^n \Delta^\alpha(\gamma_{j-1}, \gamma_j) \right) \prod_{i=1}^n G^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i) + R_N, \quad (4.2.3)$$

where $\gamma_0 = x$, $\Lambda_i = \Lambda \setminus \{x, \gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_{i-1}\}$, and the remainder term is:

$$R_N = G^\Lambda(x, x) \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_{N+1}(x, y)} \left(\prod_{j=1}^{N+1} \Delta^\alpha(\gamma_{j-1}, \gamma_j) \right) \left(\prod_{i=1}^N G^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i) \right) G^{\Lambda_{N+1}}(\gamma_{N+1}, y). \quad (4.2.4)$$

Proof. From Claim 4.2.1 we separate the case in which $x_1 = y$ (note that for the fractional operator, jumps can be arbitrarily long, so we no longer require $|x - y| = 1$).

$$G^\Lambda(x, y) = G^\Lambda(x, x) \left(\sum_{x_1 \in \Lambda \setminus \{x, y\}} \Delta^\alpha(x, x_1) G^{\Lambda_1}(x_1, y) + \Delta^\alpha(x, y) G^{\Lambda_1}(y, y) \right).$$

Iterating N times, it gives (4.2.3). □

4.3 Proof of the main Theorems

In this last Section, we can use the SAW representation of the Green function (4.2.3) in order to prove the following Theorem.

Theorem 4.3.1. *Let $\alpha \in (0, 1]$. Then, for all the above definitions, it holds*

$$\mathbb{E}(|G_{\alpha, \omega}(x, y)|^s) \leq \frac{1}{\lambda^s(1-s)} C_\beta^D(y - x), \quad (4.3.1)$$

for all $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}^d$

Proof. Taking the fractional powers of both sides of (4.2.3), and applying the subadditivity inequality $|\sum a_i|^s \leq \sum |a_i|^s$ (which holds for $s \in (0, 1)$), we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} [|G_z^\Lambda(x, y)|^s] &\leq \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_n(x, y)} \left(\prod_{i=1}^n D(\gamma_{i-1}, \gamma_i) \right) \mathbb{E} \left[|G_z^\Lambda(x, x)|^s \prod_{i=1}^n |G_z^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i)|^s \right] \\ &\quad + \sum_{w \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_{N+1}(x, w)} \left(\prod_{i=1}^{N+1} D(\gamma_{i-1}, \gamma_i) \right) \\ &\quad \cdot \mathbb{E} \left[|G_z^\Lambda(x, x)|^s \prod_{i=1}^N |G_z^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i)|^s \cdot |G_z^{\Lambda_{N+1}}(\gamma_{N+1}, y)|^s \right], \end{aligned} \quad (4.3.2)$$

$$(4.3.3)$$

The resolvent $G_z^{\Lambda_j}(w, w')$ does not depend on the random variables ω_{γ_i} for $i = 0, \dots, j-1$. Hence, recursive applications of the a priori bound 3.1.4 yield

$$\mathbb{E} \left[|G_z^\Lambda(x, x)|^s \prod_{i=1}^n |G_z^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i)|^s \right] \leq \left(\frac{1}{1-s} \frac{1}{\lambda^s} \right)^{n+1}$$

and, utilizing the deterministic bound $|G_z| \leq |\operatorname{Im}(z)|^{-1}$ (Lemma 3.1.2) for the final step

$$\begin{aligned} &\mathbb{E} \left[|G_z^\Lambda(x, x)|^s \prod_{i=1}^N |G_z^{\Lambda_i}(\gamma_i, \gamma_i)|^s \cdot |G_z^{\Lambda_{N+1}}(\gamma_{N+1}, y)|^s \right] \\ &\leq \left(\frac{1}{1-s} \frac{1}{\lambda^s} \right)^{N+1} \mathbb{E} \left[|G_z^{\Lambda_{N+1}}(\gamma_{N+1}, y)|^s \right] \\ &\leq \left(\frac{1}{1-s} \frac{1}{\lambda^s} \right)^{N+1} \frac{1}{|\operatorname{Im}(z)|^s}. \end{aligned}$$

Inserting these estimates into the sums above, we get

$$\mathbb{E} \left(|G_z^\Lambda(x, y)|^s \right) \leq \sum_{n=1}^N \beta(s)^{n+1} c_n^D(x, y) + R_N \frac{1}{|\operatorname{Im}(z)|^s}, \quad (4.3.4)$$

where we set $\beta(s) := \frac{1}{1-s} \frac{1}{\lambda^s}$.

For R_N holds,

$$\begin{aligned} R(N) &:= \left(\frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \right)^N \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_{N+1}(x,y)} \prod_{j=0}^{N-1} D(\gamma_j, \gamma_{j+1}) \\ &\leq \left(\frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s} \right)^N \sum_{w \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{\gamma \in \mathcal{S}_N(0,w)} \prod_{j=0}^{N-1} D(\gamma_j, \gamma_{j+1}). \end{aligned}$$

Let us consider the susceptibility $\chi^D(\beta)$ of these long-range self-avoiding walks

$$\chi^D(\beta) = \sum_{w \in \mathbb{Z}^d} \sum_{N=0}^{\infty} \beta(s)^N c_N^D(x, w) = \sum_{N=0}^{\infty} c_N^D \beta(s)^N, \quad (4.3.5)$$

This power series converges absolutely if and only if $0 \leq \beta(s) < R_{\chi^D}$. Thus, for $\beta(s) = \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s} < R_{\chi^D}$, the susceptibility $\chi^D(\beta)$ converges uniformly, which implies

$$R(N) \longrightarrow 0 \quad \text{as} \quad N \rightarrow \infty.$$

Sending $N \rightarrow \infty$ in (4.3.4), we obtain

$$\mathbb{E} \left(|G_z^{(\Lambda)}(x, y)|^s \right) \leq \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \beta(s)^{n+1} c_n^D(x, y). \quad (4.3.6)$$

Taking the supremum over all finite volumes $\Lambda \subset \mathbb{Z}^d$ now yields the two-point correlation function $C_{\beta(s)}^D(x - y)$ of the SAW:

$$\sup_{\Lambda \subset \mathbb{Z}^d} \mathbb{E} \left(|G_z^{(\Lambda)}(x, y)|^s \right) \leq \beta(s) C_{\beta(s)}^D(x - y). \quad (4.3)$$

□

Remark 4.3.2. The value of λ_0 is given by $R_{\chi^D} = \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda_0^s}$ which gives $\lambda_0 = \left(\frac{1}{(1-s)R_{\chi^D}} \right)^{1/s}$.

For $\alpha = 1$ we can obtain a λ_0 not depending on s , and substituting R_{χ^D} with $1/\mu_d$.

Lemma 4.3.3. *Let $\alpha = 1$. The threshold λ_0 , i.e. the smallest value of λ for which some $s \in (0, 1)$ satisfies $\beta(s) < 1/\mu_d$, satisfies the implicit equation*

$$\lambda_0 = \mu_d e \ln(\lambda_0).$$

Proof. It remains to establish for which λ for $\alpha = 1$ we may find $s \in (0, 1)$ with $\beta(s) < 1/\mu_d$. We start with the definition of the function

$$\beta(s) = \frac{1}{(1-s)\lambda^s}$$

Taking the derivative with respect to s and setting it to zero gives

$$\begin{aligned} \beta'(s) &= (1-s)^{-2}\lambda^{-s} - (1-s)^{-1}\lambda^{-s}\ln\lambda \\ &= \frac{1}{(1-s)^2\lambda^s}(1 - (1-s)\ln\lambda) = 0. \end{aligned}$$

Since the denominator is never zero, the critical point must satisfy

$$1 - (1-s)\ln\lambda = 0 \quad \implies \quad s_{\text{crit}} = 1 - \frac{1}{\ln\lambda}.$$

Next, we evaluate the function at this critical point. Using $1 - s_{\text{crit}} = \frac{1}{\ln\lambda}$, we find

$$\beta(s_{\text{crit}}) = \frac{e \ln \lambda}{\lambda}.$$

For the self-avoiding walk series to converge, this minimum value must be strictly bounded by $1/\mu_d$. In fact,

$$\frac{e \ln \lambda}{\lambda} < \frac{1}{\mu_d} \quad \implies \quad \lambda > \mu_d e \ln \lambda.$$

Therefore $\lambda_0 = \mu_d e \ln(\lambda_0)$, as claimed. $\square$

The final results regarding the decay of the fractional moments of the Green function, depend on the estimated decay of the two point function. In fact we can use the following Propositions.

Proposition 4.3.4 (Polynomial Decay of the Correlation Function). *Let $\alpha \in (0, 1)$, $s \in (\frac{d}{d+2\alpha}, 1)$ and $\beta \geq 0$ such that $\beta < R_{\chi^D}$. Then there exists a constant $K_0 < \infty$, independent of x , such that*

$$C_\beta^D(x) \leq K_0 \frac{1}{|x|^{s(d+2\alpha)}} \quad \text{for all } x \in \mathbb{Z}^d.$$

The proof of this Proposition can be found in [CS15, Lemma 2.4].

Proposition 4.3.5 (Exponential Decay of the Correlation Function). *Let $\alpha = 1$, $s \in (0, 1)$ and $\beta \geq 0$ such that $\beta < 1/\mu_d$. Then for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there*

exists a constant $K_\varepsilon < \infty$, independent of x , such that

$$C_\beta^D(x) \leq K_\varepsilon ((\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta)^{|x|} \quad \text{for all } x \in \mathbb{Z}^d.$$

Proof. We know that $|\mathcal{S}_N(0, x)| = 0$ whenever $N < |x|$, and the sum defining $C_\beta^D(x)$ may be restricted to $N \geq |x|$. Considering that $D(x, y) = \delta_{|x-y|=1}$,

$$C_\beta^D(x) = \sum_{N=|x|}^{\infty} \beta^N |\mathcal{S}_N(x, 0)| \leq \sum_{N=|x|}^{\infty} \beta^N c_N. \quad (4.3.7)$$

Fix $\varepsilon > 0$. Since $\mu_d = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} c_N^{1/N}$, by the definition of limit there exists $N_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that

$$c_N^{1/N} < \mu_d + \varepsilon \quad \text{for all } N \geq N_0,$$

that is,

$$c_N^D < (\mu_d + \varepsilon)^N \quad \text{for all } N \geq N_0.$$

For $N = 0, 1, \dots, N_0 - 1$, define

$$\hat{K}_\varepsilon := \max \left(1, \max_{0 \leq N < N_0} \frac{c_N}{(\mu_d + \varepsilon)^N} \right),$$

which is finite, being the maximum of finitely many finite quantities. By construction it holds

$$c_N^D \leq \hat{K}_\varepsilon (\mu_d + \varepsilon)^N \quad \text{for all } N \geq 0.$$

Combining it with (4.3.7) we obtain

$$C_\beta^D(x) \leq \hat{K}_\varepsilon \sum_{N=|x|}^{\infty} [(\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta]^N.$$

Choosing ε small enough that $r := (\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta < 1$ (possible since $\beta < 1/\mu_d$), the tail of the geometric series equals

$$\sum_{N=|x|}^{\infty} r^N = \frac{r^{|x|}}{1 - r}.$$

Hence

$$C_\beta^D(x) \leq \frac{\hat{K}_\varepsilon}{1 - (\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta} [(\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta]^{|x|}.$$

where $\frac{\hat{K}_\varepsilon}{1 - (\mu_d + \varepsilon)\beta}$ is still finite and independent of x .

□

Chapter 5

Conclusion and Open Problems

In this final chapter, we are going to discuss the results we obtained for the disorder threshold in the previous chapter and give a broader overview of the results known in the field. Moreover, we compare how much the use of the SAW method improves the estimates. At the end, we discuss some of the open problems that depend on the dimension d considered.

5.1 How large is large?

The disorder parameter $\lambda > 0$ plays a key role in the Anderson model, as it controls how strong the random potential is compared to the deterministic kinetic energy.

In this thesis, we focused on bounding the fractional moments of the Green function for any complex energy $z \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \mathbb{R}$. By combining a priori bounds with the self-avoiding walk (SAW) method, we demonstrated that once the disorder exceeds a threshold of $\lambda_0(s)$, the spectrum is almost surely pure point for all $\alpha \in (0, 1]$. However, it is not known whether $\lambda_0(s)$ is the smallest value of the disorder parameter for which localization holds.

Using self-avoiding walks (SAW) helps us obtain better estimates on the disorder strength required to prove localization. For the standard model ($\alpha = 1$), Aizenman and Graf originally found that localization holds when $\lambda > \lambda_{AG}$, where λ_{AG} satisfies

$$\lambda_{AG} = 4de \ln \lambda_{AG}.$$

Later, J. Schenker [Sch15] used SAW methods to obtain a better threshold, λ_{And} , which satisfies

$$\lambda_{And} = \mu_d e \ln \lambda_{And},$$

as we proved in the last chapter. Since the connectivity constant μ_d is smaller than or equal to $2d - 1$, $\lambda_{And} < \lambda_{AG}$. Moreover, this result is consistent with the early estimate proposed by Anderson in 1958 [And58].

Following a similar idea, Disertori, Escobar, and Rojas-Molina used SAW methods for the Green function in [DERM24] to obtain a new threshold $\lambda_0(s)$ for the fractional model. When considering the standard case ($\alpha = 1$), their method gives the same value as Schenker's. For the fractional case ($\alpha \in (0, 1)$), it gives a tighter bound than the previous estimates.

The following values are given by J. Schenker in [Sch15].

Dimension	μ_d^*	λ_{And}^*	λ_{AG}
2	2.68	22.8	100.2
3	4.72	50.3	167.0
4	6.81	81.7	238.1

Table 5.1: The value μ_d^* represents the upper bound for the connectivity constant. The threshold λ_{And}^* is the corresponding root for Anderson's critical disorder, and λ_{AG} represents the Aizenman-Graf critical disorder threshold.

5.2 Final conclusions

Nevertheless, finding the exact values of λ at which the transition between localized and delocalized regimes occurs is still an open problem and depends strongly on the dimension d . In fact, we conclude this thesis with a brief overview of the known results concerning the disorder threshold for different dimensions.

- For $d = 1$, mathematicians have completely proven that localization happens for any $\lambda > 0$.
- For $d = 2$, it is numerically expected that localization persists for arbitrarily small disorder and in some intervals of the spectrum, but a proof remains an open problem.

- For $d \geq 3$, we still do not know the exact λ where the transition from conductor to insulator happens. Right now, localization has only been proved for large λ , starting from our threshold λ_0 . In this higher-dimensional case, it is strongly believed there is a true Anderson transition. At small disorder, the spectrum should be absolutely continuous. As the disorder λ gets larger, the localized states are expected to expand until they cover the whole spectrum.

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